

# ENGLISH 508 FINAL

*" Every Next Level "*

*of life will demand a different*

*\*YOU\**

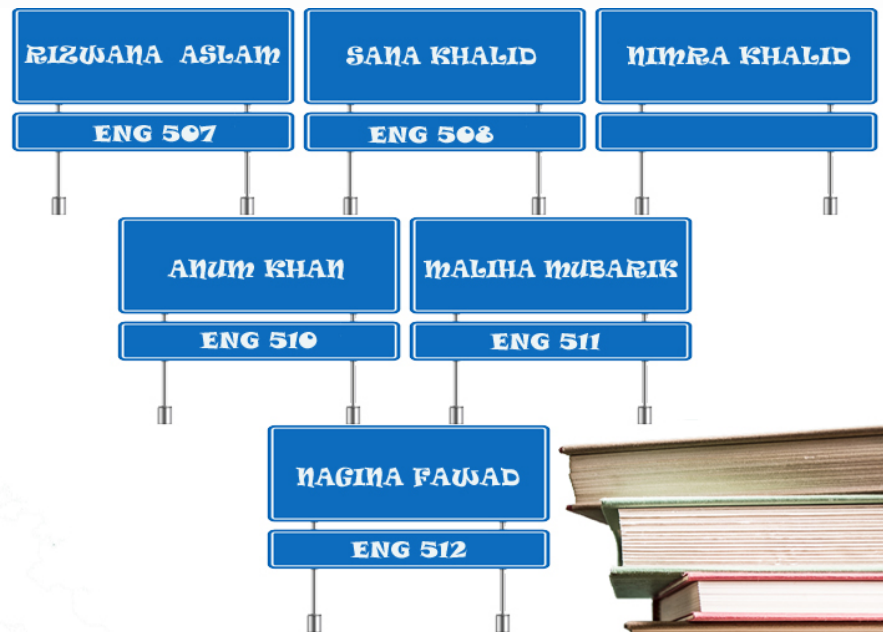
THANKS TO OUR SOURCE OF STRENGTH  
**ANNY ADEEL**

\*\*\* The Capt.'s have generated \*\*\*

*all the possible key points*

*of*

Semantics and Pragmatics Eng 508 final



SIBTAIN MUMTAZ

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**ENG 508 SOLVED FINAL PAST PAPERS COMPILED BY 2nd SEMESTER****Syllabus: Lesson 23-43 (Topics 114-225)****Q. Driving force behind the Grice, s work (Topic#114)**

The fact that “what we literally say and what we clearly mean often differ is intuitively obvious but difficult to describe or explain systematically, was the driving force behind Grice's work. He was Interested in developing a systematic explanation of how and why literal and intended meaning differs. Implicatures are context-dependent.

**Q. What is implicature? (Topic#114)**

The term “**Implicature**” accounts for what a speaker can imply, suggest or mean, as distinct from what the speaker literally says (Grice, 1975). Any meaning conveyed indirectly or through hints, and understood implicitly without ever being explicitly stated.

Example:

Sara: My brother has just told me that he cannot look after our daughter after all.

Irum: He’s such a considerate man!

Explanation:

Here, we have clear sense that literal meaning of irum ‘s word cannot tell us everything what she meant, without particular knowledge of the talk. It perhaps most likely that she is speaking sarcastically or she might genuinely believe that he is a considerate man.

**Q: What is the difference between generalized and particular conversational implicature? (Topic#116)**

Generalized Particular: It is a conversational implicature that is inferable without reference to a special context (no special knowledge is required to figure out the additional meaning). It means that a generalized conversational implicature is one which does not depend on particular features of the context, but is instead typically associated with the proposition expressed.

A particularized conversational implicature occurs when a conversation takes place in a very specific context in which locally recognized inferences are assumed.

EXAMPLE:

1) “Fred thinks there is a meeting tonight”.

Fred doesn’t know for sure that there is a meeting tonight.

2) A: Did you invited bella and Cathy?

B: I invited Bella.

EXAMPLE:

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1. Where is my book?

Your young sister is drawing something. The action “draw” of young sister would ordinarily not convey anything about her book, so implicature in this case depends on the context as well as the utterance itself.

2.A: hey, coming to the party tonight?

B: My parents are visiting.

Occur when a conversation takes place in a very specific context in which locally recognized inferences are assumed. The particularized conversational implicature is used widely, because it can provide with

more contents, more aspects of speech than generalized conversational implicature.

### Q: What is scalar implicature? (Topic#117)

A scalar implicature is a quantity implicature based on the use of an informationally weak term

in an implicational scale. Example Some professors are famous, where the speaker 's use of some typically indicates that s/he had reasons not to use a more informative term .e.g. all. Some professors are famous, therefore, give rise to the implicature that not all professors are famous. Similarly, in the utterance, some of the boys went to the party, the word some implicates "not all of the boys went to the party. "Classic examples of scales include numerals (< ... three, two, one>), modals (<necessarily, possibly>, <must, should, may>), **connectives** (<and, or>), **adverbs** (<always, often, sometimes>), **degree adjectives** (<hot, warm>) and verbs of ranking (<know, believe>, <love, like>) or completion (<start, finish >).

### Q: Write the Properties of conversational implicature. (Topic#119)

**Non-detachability** - a conversational implicature is attached to the semantic content of what is said, not to the linguistic form i.e. it is possible to use a synonym and keep the implicature intact. It will not be detached from the utterance as a whole, even though the specific words may be changed.

**Reinforceability** - Implicatures can be reinforced, e.g. John answered most of the questions. But he wasn't able to answer the last question. (not redundant)

**Non-conventionality** - implicature is not carried by what is said, but only by the saying of what is said, or by putting it that way. '

**Calculability** — speakers try to convey conversational implicatures and hearers are able to understand them suggests that implicatures are calculable.

### Q. Define cancellability. (Topic#119)

Cancellability is one of the properties of conversational implicature. It is also known as defeasibility. Presence of a conversational implicature relies on a number of factors such as the conventional meaning of words used, the linguistic and situational contexts, etc. So if any of them changes, the implicature will also change.

Example

1) John has 3 cows.

2) John has only three cows.

3) John has 3 cows, if not more.

4) John has at least 3 cows.

**Q. Conventional implicature does not depend on social content for interpretation. however, they can associate it with specific words. Elaborate the concept with the words such as even and yet. (Topic#120)**

Conventional implicature is based on the cooperative principle or the maxim. They do not have to occur in a conversation. They do not depend on special contexts for their interpretation. However, they are associated with specific words that result in additional conveyed meanings when used. The English conjunction 'but' is one of these words. The interpretation of any utterance of the type 'p but q' will be based on the conjunction 'p & q' Plus an implicature of contrast' between the information in 'p and the information in q'. Other English words such as 'even' and 'yet' also have conventional implicatures.

**Q: Define non-truth conditionality of conventional implicature. (Topic#121)**

Non-truth-conditionality of conventional implicature do not make any contribution to truth conditions e.g. a) We want peace and they want war. b) We want peace but they want war. Both a 'and' b 'shares the same truth conditions. Conventional implicature is associated with speaker or utterance rather than a sentence.

**Q: What is Weak implicature? (Topic#123)**

Weak Implicature is a communicated implication of an utterance which is not by itself the main

communicative point of the utterance. The idea is that for some utterances a hearer can understand what a speaker is trying to communicate even if he fails to get one or more implicatures. Weak implicature is the weaker the encouragement, and the wider the range of possibilities among which the hearer can choose, the weaker the implicatures. For example,

John: What are you planning to do today? Mary: I 'm tired.

There is no single implicature which the hearer must take Mary to be communicating in order to understand her utterance here. Instead, there are several assumptions that he might supply as an implicated premise, each of which would lead to a different implicature e.g. If Mary is tired, she doesn't want to go out. The weaker the implicature, the less responsibility the speaker takes for their truth, i.e. the more they are the responsibility of the hearer.

**Q. Give examples of deictic expression 'this' and 'that. (topic #124 but exp from google)**

Deictic expressions 'this' and 'that' are demonstrative pronouns come under the category of spatial deixis. The demonstrative 'this' and 'that' are used to mark the movement towards the speaker.

Examples

1) Have you seen this?

2) You asked me that before.

### Q: what is social deixis?(Topic#127)

Social deixis is concerned with the codification of the social status of the speaker, addressee, or a third person or entity referred to as well as the social relationships holding between them. It may include social class, kin relationship, age, sex, profession, and ethnic group. The pronoun systems of some languages also grammaticalized the information about the social identities or relationships of the participants in the conversation, Levinson (1983) call this phenomenon a social deixis. Social deixis refers to expressions which clearly encode social meaning. Address terms i.e. social status is indexicalized through the linguistic terms, for example, Madam, Sir, professor, doctor.

### Q: What is deictic reference? (Topic#130)

Deictic Reference is the use of gestures or other means of pointing to specify an ambiguous utterance, for instance, pointing at a place in a map and saying here. This property of language is called indexicality, and the lexical items that encode context in the way are called deictic. Indexical: the role of context in helping to determine reference. For instance, if in a lecture, I was to deliver (2), the three stressed you in the second part of the utterance would be accompanied by gestures and/or eye contact of some kind. Each would pick out a different referent whose identity would be known only by those present at the time of my utterance. But in (3) you have a much more general the reference. In fact, being present when the sentence was uttered would not help you to identify a referent. Thus, this generalized use of you is sometimes said to be non-deictic.

### Q. Searle's speech act theory (Topic#141)

Searle (1976), proposed that all acts fall into following five main types:

- 1: **Representatives** commit the speakers to the truth of the expressed proposition state what the speaker believes to be the case or not (e.g. asserting, concluding, statements of fact) The earth is flat. (**statement of fact**).
- 2: **Directives** are attempts by the speaker to get the addressee to do something what the speaker wants (requesting, questioning).
- 3: **Commissive** commit the speaker to some future course of action – what s/he intends (promising, threatening, offering, refusing).
- 4: **Expressive** express a psychological state or what a speaker feels (thanking, apologizing, welcoming, congratulating).
- 5: **Declarations** effect immediate changes in the institutional state of affairs and which tend to rely on elaborate extra-linguistic institutions.

### Q. Define directives. (Topic#141)

Directives are attempts by the speaker to get the addressee to do something. what the speaker wants (requesting, questioning).

### Q: Two preparatory conditions of promise (Topic#142)

There are two preparatory conditions:

First, the event will not happen by itself. Second, the event will have a beneficial effect. When the speaker utters a warning, there are the following preparatory conditions: It is not clear that the hearer knows the event will occur. The speaker does think the event will occur. The event will not have a beneficial effect.

### **Q. The ways of expressing speech Act vary from culture to culture. Discuss. (Topic#145)**

Speech acts and their linguistic realizations are culturally bound. The ways of expressing speech acts vary from country to country and from culture to culture. In India, for example, the expressive speech act of praising and congratulating a person on their appearance can be realized by the words such as **“How fat you are! because the weight is an indicator** of personality and health in a country where there is main nutrition. In Britain, these words express **“deploring' or criticizing”**, since the fashion and diet foods industries, and possibly health education have conditioned many into thinking that slim is beautiful. Differences in speech acts can cause difficulties cross-culturally.

### **Q. What is face saving act? (Topic#150)**

Face-saving Act gives the possibility that some action might be interpreted as a threat to another 's face the speaker can say something to lessen the possible threat, e.g. could you pass me that paper or I'm dying for a drink. Yes, it's really hot. Isn't it? In situations where a face threatening act (FTA) could arise, the politeness strategy used will depend largely on the relationship between the speaker and the listener.

### **Q. What is positive face? (Topic#151)**

Positive face reflects the desire to have one's self-image approved of by others. It is the need to be connected, to belong, and to be a member of the group whereas, here, negative doesn't mean bad. Example: Your friend asks for a ride to the airport.

### **Q. What is negative face? (Topic#151)**

**Negative face:** Negative is simply the opposite of positive. Negative face is the need to be independent and free from imposition. Example: I am sorry to bother you. I know you 're busy.

### **Q. What is meant by off record with reference to politeness theory. Support your answer with an example. (Topic#152)**

Off record is when you decide to say something, you simply produce statement such as: [a] Uh, I forgot my pen. [b] Hmm, I wonder where I put my pen. These types of statements are not directly addressed to the other and the other can act as if the statements have not even been heard by them. Such indirect statements are technically described as being off-record. They might be referred to as hints. Indirect statement Involves the speaker requesting something without directly asking the listener to do it. The approach is more deferential and places the burden on the speaker. For example, a speaker might comment on something that needs to be done rather than asking the listener to do it directly.

## Q. Deference strategy of politeness? (Topic#154)

Deference strategy is the tendency to use negative politeness forms, emphasizing the Hearer's right to freedom. A deference strategy is involved in what is called formal politeness. It is impersonal, as if nothing is shared, and can include expressions that refer to neither the speaker nor the hearer e.g. **Customers may not smoke here, sir.** The language associated with this strategy emphasizes the speaker's and hearer's independence. This independence is marked via an absence of personal claims as an alternative version of the party invitation: There's going to be a party if you can make it. It will be fun. These general types of strategies are illustrated here via utterances which are actually central to the speech event (e.g. invitation).

## Q. Status as reference with social factors of politeness? (Topic#157)

The choice of the politeness formulation depends on the social distance and the power relation between speakers. When there is social distance, politeness is encoded and there is more indirectness. When there is less social distance, there is less negative politeness and indirectness. Variables that determine social distance are: degree of familiarity and differences of status, roles, age, gender, education, class, occupation and ethnicity.

The degree of familiarity is that speakers know each other, do not need to use politeness strategies; if they use them, it can imply quite opposite of politeness. It is those of the lower status, the less dominant role and so on, who use more indirectness and more negative politeness features, such as hedges and mitigation, then those with higher status and so on do.

## Q. Degree of formality in the politeness (Topic#157)

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## Q. What happens when a polite form is used un appropriately? (Topic#159)

If the strategies presented do not appear appropriately contextualized it may be difficult to know how to use them. If a context is provided the learner has a better idea of how and when to use them, for example: To find out different pragmatic parameters involved behind all these pragmatic choices; write, the answers to these questions:

[1] Where are the people? [2] What is the relationship between them?

## Q. Five features of conversational analysis (Topic#160)

Features of conversational analysis include, turn-taking, pauses, overlaps and backchannels, adjacency pairs, preference structures, and sequences expansion.

## Q. Turn taking in conversation (Topic#161)

Turn-taking operates in accordance with a local management system that is conventionally known by the members of a social group. This system is essentially a set of conventions for getting turns, keeping them, or giving them away; it is needed most at those points where there is a possible change in who has the turn. Turn-taking can be applied to conversations where speakers cooperate and share the floor equally. Also be applied to conversations where there is competition, fighting to keep the floor and preventing others from getting it. Moreover, different cultures have their own preferences as to how long a speaker should hold the floor, how they indicate that they have finished and another speaker can take the floor. For example, Latin Americans have pauses of a fraction of a second and it is socially acceptable to overlap and interrupt, whereas North American Indians expect a two-second pause between turns, and for the Japanese, it is unacceptable to interrupt.

### **Q. What is meant by adjacency pairs in conversational analysis? (Topic#163)**

"A sequence of two related utterances by two different speakers' is known as adjacency pairs. The second utterance is always a response to the first for instance: IA: You left the light on. I, [B It wasn't me'], [the sequence of complaint-denial is an adjacency pair].

Types of Adjacency pairs are question-answer, greeting-greeting, Invitation or offer acceptance/non-acceptance, complaint-apology/denial, summons-response, request-acceptance, promise or thanks-acknowledgement, and goodbye-goodbye.

An insertion sequence is one adjacency pair within another; a number of insertion sequences can be infinite, but the limit of human memory does not allow that. Delay in response marks potential unavailability of the immediate expected answer; it represents the distance between what is expected and what is provided

### **Q.Rules of appropriateness in SLL (Topic#167)**

Intercultural pragmatics is based on the socio-cognitive approach according to which, our mind exists simultaneously both in the head and in the world. Cross-cultural comparative studies of discourse have shown that rules of appropriateness vary across cultures. Thus, for learners to become truly effective communicators in a second language, they need to acquire these rules of appropriateness in addition to what we have come to call linguistic competence.

### **Q. Interlanguage pragmatics (Topic#168)**

Interlanguage pragmatics focuses on the pragmatic development of second/ foreign languages learners as they seek to become proficient, successful users of the target language. ILP may be considered a sub-area of second language acquisition (SLA) and thus is inherently anchored in acquisition contexts. Learners and teachers need to understand interlanguage pragmatics (ILP) to facilitate our understanding of how people comprehend and communicate meaning beyond what is said in the target language. The interlanguage is a reduced system at the early stages of development. Interlanguage refers to intermediate, dynamic, and transient linguistic systems that, according to the theory, continue to develop over time as learners move closer and closer to attaining native-like proficiency. Learners progress along a trajectory towards their desired goal, sometimes regressing and sometimes making rapid progress. For instance, in academic speaking skills, the learners may struggle with conversational chat unless they live with a native speaker.

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**Q. role of computer in the development of linguistics? (Topic#171)**

Computer-Assisted Language Learning (CALL) is defined as —the search for and study of applications of the computer in language teaching and learning (Levy, 1997: 1). CALL covers a broad range of activities which makes it difficult to describe it as a single idea or simple research agenda. CALL has come to encompass issues of materials design, technologies, pedagogical theories and modes of instruction. Computational Linguistics on the other hand, is the study of language from a computational perspective. CL is concerned with the study of computer systems for understanding and generating natural language (Grisham, 1986). The process of dictionary making today is undergoing dramatic change. It is largely owing to advances in computers and the availability of machine-readable collections of texts known as corpora.

Corpus linguistics is the term used for compiling collections of texts and using them to probe language use. In this context, a corpus is a representative body of texts (corpus is the Latin word for body'). More recent corpora contain over 100 million words, and corpora of texts in many languages are being compiled. It is also very essential for twenty-first-century dictionary making and in many other ways, including speech recognition and artificial intelligence.

**Q. Note on stage of interlingual translation model. (Topic#173)**

An interlingual translation model - in which the basic semantic elements of each language can be represented abstractly and then encoded into other languages. This would require twelve procedures - one decoding procedure and one encoding procedure for each of the six languages. This model is simpler than the transfer translation model that requires 30 procedures.

**Q. What are the reasons of the failure of word for word translation? (Topic#173)**

Word-for-word translation does not do the trick because, for one thing, languages differ in their word orders and, for another, the metaphors of one language may not translate into the relevant metaphor of another language. We don't know the extent to which sentences can be decomposed into the kinds of abstract semantic representations needed for an interlingual model, especially in making a language neutral intermediate representation. Difficulties related to translation in either model concern what one language encodes that another may not encode.

**Q. Why pragmatics less explored in computational linguistics? (Topic#174)**

As compared to morphological, lexical, phonological, grammatical, and semantic features of texts, the features of pragmatics have been less well explored in computational linguistics. One reason for the relative neglect of pragmatics is that modeling the world knowledge and discourse knowledge that speakers rely on when producing and understanding texts is even more challenging than creating models of structural aspects of language. Another is that the kinds of linguistic features by which some pragmatic categories are realized are not always expressed in ways that computers can readily track. We have seen, speakers base some aspects of expression on their beliefs about what addressees know and are thought to have in the forefront of their minds.

**Q. Difference between definite and indefinite article? (Topic#179)**

Definiteness in English is marked by the choice of articles (definite the versus indefinite \_a') or by demonstratives (this and that, both definite). Indefinite noun phrases in English are marked by a,an (a furnace, an apartment building) or by the absence of any article (oil, fire, apartment buildings).

## Q. Generic and specific expressions (Topic#180)

Generic sentences express generalizations about kinds and are an important tool for the transmission of knowledge (Gelman, 2003). Consider the following pairs of sentences:

- 1 a. Tigers are striped.  
b. Tigers are on the front lawn.
- 2 a. A tiger is striped. b. A tiger is on the front lawn.
- 3 a. The tiger is striped. b. The tiger is on the front lawn.

The interpretation of the first sentence of each pair is intuitively quite different from the interpretation of the second sentence in the pair. In the second sentences, we are talking about some particular tigers: a group of tigers in (1b), some individual tiger in (2b), and some unique salient or familiar tiger in (3b)—a beloved pet, perhaps. In the first sentences, however, we are saying something general. There is/are no particular tiger or tigers that we are talking about. A noun phrase may be generic or specific depending on whether it refers to a category or to particular members of a category. For instance: 1) It describes the bombardier beetle, which squirts a lethal mixture into the face of its enemy.

2) The giraffe bent slowly forward and gingerly took a carrot from my palm. In the first example, the “bombardier beetle” is generic because it refers to the set of all bombardier beetle; but in the second, which could have been uttered during a visit to a zoo, the giraffe refers to a particular animal and is, thus, specific. In the first sentence, the bombardier beetle is generic and definite, while a lethal mixture is generic and indefinite. In the second sentence, the giraffe is specific and definite, and a carrot is specific and indefinite. Thus, the generic/ specific contrast differs from the definite/indefinite contrast.

## Q. Nature of pragmatics investigation (Topic#181)

In the linguistic investigation, a favored method is to frame and test the hypothesis. We can imagine investigable topics that might be turned into testable hypotheses, such as family members show that they are displeased with one another by responding to propositional content rather than the illocutionary force of each other's utterances, treating indirect speech acts as though they were direct speech acts. For example, the case of two-years old to a series of direct and indirect requests. The research method here involves following procedures:

Frame a testable hypothesis suggested by some observation about the way that world appears to work.

Here are the steps to investigate

- (i) Designing an experiment that enables you to collect data which test this hypothesis.
- (ii) Collecting the data under experimental conditions.

(iii) Quantifying the data in order to determine whether or not the hypothesis is proved.

(iv) Considering the implications of the findings and whether follow-up experiments would be useful.

### **Q. Describe dos and don'ts difference in data collection (Topic#182)**

You may be collecting your data because you wish to test a hypothesis. Data will usually be elicited: by designing the experiments very carefully to make sure that you are collecting data that enable you to measure what you seek to measure rather than some other phenomenon. This means that all the non-relevant variables need to be eliminated. It wouldn't be very useful, for example, if a linguist measured two years old responses to indirect requests only to realize afterwards that the results reflected the extent to which the requests themselves were palatable. There are some 'dos' and 'don'ts' when it comes to data collection.

### **Q. Transcription of conversation (Topic#183)**

Conventional transcriptions of conversations use a standard orthographic script rather than phonemic transcription. They show how items e.g. and you are actually spoken since their realization may vary in obvious ways. You might expect to indicate hesitations e.g. er and umm. Other fillers and uptake signals e.g. uh-uh and yeah and audible breathing (hh) and indrawn breath (hh) can be indicated. A more difficult issue is whether and how to represent intonation and pitch; the easiest solution for distinctive pitch prominence might be marked by capitalizing the appropriate segment (e.g. you WHAT). More important in many ways is marking features of conversational sequences. For instance, you will always need to mark pauses in the talk. The widely used convention is parentheses, with the length of pause indicated in tenth of seconds, so that (2.5) would represent a pause of two-and-a-half seconds. Short pauses can also be marked with parentheses and points, with (.) equal to a one-syllable length pause, and (..) equal to a two-syllable length pause. Another sequencing phenomenon that needs to be marked is the overlap of two speakers.

### **Q. lexical and structural ambiguity (Topic#186)**

**Lexical ambiguity** that occurs when one form corresponds to more than one words with different meanings. This type of ambiguity, in written texts, results from multiple meanings of a word, and in spoken language, results from different word forms of the same sounds. With respect to a written text, in a sentence e.g. (1), the word bank can refer to a slope side of a river or a business establishment. The word captain has one meaning of 'the person in command of a ship, aircraft, or spacecraft' or another meaning of 'a leader of a team or group, so this sentence may be also ambiguous without context.

#### **Structural ambiguity**

Structural ambiguity is due to the syntactic structure of the utterance, as in: They are fighting fish (Nicholas Allott, 1988). Structural ambiguity refers to the situation in which 'a sentence may have different meanings because the words of a sentence are related to each other in various ways, even though each word is clear. A sentence like (2) illustrates two different possibilities - one is that Ted saw a girl with his glasses; the other one is that Ted saw a girl with her glasses. Distinguishing from lexical ambiguity, all the words in this sentence are clear on their individual meanings. Thus, a simple test for differentiating these two types is that the sentence

which includes more than one structure trees without individually ambiguous words is a structurally ambiguous sentence.

### Q. Referential and attribute (Topic#187)

Referential /Attributive Distinction is a distinction between two apparently different ways of using definite descriptions, made by the philosopher Keith Donnellan (Allott, 1988). One way of using a definite description is to talk about whichever individual (or individuals, for plural definite descriptions) satisfies the material in the nominal restrictor. This is the attributive use. Another way of using a definite description is to pick out and talk about a certain individual (or individuals, for plural definite descriptions).

### Q. Note on argumentation theory (Topic#187)

**Argumentation Theory:** The systematic study of discourse that is intended to persuade rationally, including the study of logical arguments and fallacies and their uses. Argumentation theory is a sub-field of pragmatics since persuading by the use of arguments is one use of language, i.e. Media communication. Argumentation theorists also investigate normative as well as descriptive aspects of language use.

### Q. What is code theory (Topic#188)

Code Model is a model of communication according to which communication involves the transmission of meaning – the message – by encoding it in language or some other codes. The transmitter encodes and transmits the message as a linguistic signal, which the receiver then decodes. According to the model, a coding/decoding process will lead to perfect transmission of the message if the code is shared, encoding and decoding are carried out successfully, and the signal is not degraded by noise or interrupted (Allott, 1988). The terms message, signal, transmitter and receiver are from information theory. For example, A speaker says 'Tree'. The hearer would encode it into 'Stem, branches, leaves and other parts of a tree'. Encoding can also be on the sentence level.

### Q. What sort of relationship is generated between the signals in code model theory? (Topic#188)

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### Q. Explain demonstrative (Topic#190)

A group of indexical words or phrases that are used to refer, include this, that, these and those (in English). These words are used to make demonstrative phrases, for example, this pen, that car, these keys, those

penguins (Allott, 1988). Demonstratives are often accompanied by a gesture that demonstrates the object referred to, pointing, or gazing at the object, i.e. that boy. As with other indexical, the referent of a demonstrative must be worked out to know

### **Q. what proposition the speaker is expressing. (Topic#190)**

The particular demonstrative used restricts the search for referents, in subtle ways. If there is one book on a table the speaker may refer to it with “this book” or “that book”. But if it is the nearer of two, then “this book” is preferred, except if both books are nearer the hearer, when again “that book” is acceptable. In English and other languages, the demonstratives encode a two-way proximal/distal distinction, but other languages have a three way or four-way distinction. For space deixis, demonstratives are frequently used for discourse deixis, as in: —I am glad you told me that and this is what I ‘ll be talking about today.

### **Q. Experimental pragmatics (Topic#193)**

In Experimental Pragmatics, the application of experimental techniques largely forms psycholinguistics to the areas of interest in pragmatics. Techniques used include on-line measures and off-line measures. On-line measures contain eye-tracking and timed responses to stimuli and off-line measures such as the choice from a set of candidates of the best sentence to describe a scene. Experimental pragmatics is a very recent development, although existing psycholinguistic work on disambiguation, semantic illusions and other aspects of interpretation is relevant (Allott, 1988).

### **Q. Differentiate between online measures and offline measures with reference to the experimental pragmatics. (Topic#193)**

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### **Q. Three fundamental concepts of mental process (Topic#194)**

The mental processes of human communication are based on three fundamental concepts:

1. cooperation,
2. sharedness, and

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### 3. communicative intention

#### **Q.cognitive pragmatics (Topic#194)**

According to Bruno G. Bara (2010), Cognitive pragmatics focuses on the mental states and, to some extent, the mental correlates of the participants of a conversation. The mental processes of human communication are based on three fundamental concepts: cooperation, sharedness, and communicative intention. These three fundamentals were proposed by Grice in 1975, though each has since been refined by other scholars. The cooperative nature of communication is justified by the evolutionary perspective through which the cooperative reasoning underlying a conversation is explained. Sharedness accounts for the possibility of comprehending non-standard communication such as deceit, irony, and figurative language (Bruno G. Bara, 2010). According to Nicholas Allott (1988), the role of language is to allow the communication of thoughts. For cognitive linguists, language and the way we think are not to be artificially separated, and the study of language is expected to yield insights into cognition in general: language is a window into the mind (Fauconnier).

#### **Q. What is fragment? (Topic#195)**

Linguistic material that is less than a complete sentence is called a fragment. Many utterances are fragments. For example: [- Over here!], [Water!], [On the second shelf down, behind the jam- Nice one!], [- A: How many cats do you have?], [- B: Five.]. Fragments are generally, not always, linguistic constituents: preposition phrases, noun phrases and so on. Fragments can be used to express complete propositions (Allott, 1988). For example, a speaker uttering —On the top shelf|| might mean: The jar is on the top shelf. Or [Where are you going?] Answer can be -to school. [Did you eat something?] The answer can be -ate nothing. It is controversial whether fragments are sometimes or never syntactically elliptical.

Example: Are you writing something? a letter to my friend.

#### **Q. Define irony (Topic#197)**

Irony is a figure of speech seen in the following example: Alistair (stepping out into heavy rain): Another lovely day! The classical conception of irony is that it is a figure of speech in which the speaker means the opposite of what her words mean, and this has been taken as defining. However, this condition is neither necessary nor sufficient for irony. For example, someone sees a car with a broken window and, attempting to draw attention to it in an ironic way says, “Look! That car hasn’t got a broken window (Allott, 1988).

#### **Q: Hyperbole (Topic#197)**

Hyperbole is a figure of speech also known as an overstatement, in which a speaker expresses an exaggerated meaning than his words carry in themselves. Intuitively, this is a very common figure of speech. People often say, I am starving. when they mean that they are merely rather hungry. it’s miles and miles' is a common way of complaining about even quite short distances. On a Gricean analysis, hyperbole is a blatant violation of the first maxim of quality. For example, the speaker is not literally starving, Or in the second example, the destination might be in the next street but the speaker is just trying to exaggerate.

#### **Q. Detailed note on i-principle (Topic#198)**

In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the I-principle or Informativeness-principle is one of a small number of principles that govern communicative behaviour. The I-principle enjoins speakers to say as little as necessary (while bearing mind the opposing Q-principle).

If a speaker's utterance appears to be governed by the I-principle, then the hearer can take it that the speaker expressed herself economically. 'The speaker can take the utterance as implicating information that is more specific than what is said along stereotypical or expected lines (Allott, 1988).

### **Q. M-Principle (Topic#198)**

When marked expressions are used the M-principle comes into play.

In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the M-principle or Manner principle is one of a small number of heuristics governing communicative behaviour. A brief formulation of the M-principle in terms of instructions to speaker and hearer is as follows:

Speaker: Do not say things in an abnormal way without reason.

Addressee: What is said in an abnormal way indicates an abnormal situation.

### **Q. Write a note on the characteristics of stress pattern in a sentence which entail something. (Topic#203)**

Prosody is a variation in the rhythm, stress, and intonation of speech at the level of utterances, rather than at the lexical level. The interaction of prosody with syntactic structure, and the effect that prosody has on the interpretation of utterances are not well understood in general. For example, the difference in stress between 'REcord' (the noun) and 'reCORD' (the verb) is not a prosodic difference. But the difference in stress positions in the following examples is prosodic: Alice eats GRASS. Alice EATS grass.

### **Q. What is the coordination problem at the level of local joint action. Explain briefly with reference to action. (Topic#211)**

When the frame for a joint activity is not shared, then the participants even at a supermarket may not be able to achieve their goals. Coordination problems at the level of local joint actions are multiple, the primary one being what the speakers mean and what their addressees understand them to mean (Clark, 1996: 73).

### **Q. Active theory (Topic#211)**

All theories of pragmatic meaning include a basic notion, labeled shared background knowledge, world knowledge, or, common ground (LoCastro 2012). Action and Activity Joint actions can consist of speech events, in which conversants —negotiate deals, gossip, get to know each other|| (Clark 1996: 17). However, when the frame for a joint activity is not shared, then the participants even at a supermarket may not be able to achieve their goals. Coordination problems at the level of local joint actions are multiple, the primary one being —what the speakers mean and what their addressees understand them to mean (Clark, 1996: 73). Mis-coordination can be wiped out through language, the conventional signaling system par excellence, or through coordination devices such as gestures. Features of language in use – the length of clauses, the rhythmic

placement of turn-taking cues, and tag questions – develop out of the need to achieve joint activities of joint action. Clarks theory provides a framework for studying how speakers and listeners embed signals regarding their identities in their talk. The only evidence to support action theory involves the sociolinguistic dimensions of interactional discourse

## Q. Language use and gender (Topic#215)

The term “gendered” clearly communicates the notion that gender is an action, something that one does, i.e. gender in the media, in the workplace, in religion, and in the family (LoCastro, 2012). To understand Gender, we need to consider that how children acquire an awareness of gender at very early ages. Female children learn that pink is the color for girls. This starts as nonverbal cues of femaleness translates into differences in language use. Tannen (1993) claimed that, though there is no question that dominance by men of women exists, it is not possible to attribute the cause of the enactment of dominance to specific linguistic realizations, For example, indirectness, interruptions, or topic shifts (LoCastro, 2012). According to LoCastro (2012) many books have been written on the gender-biased language in English, i.e. excessive use of “He ‘rather than “She ‘. Certain uses of language from word choice to speaking styles are still linked negatively to female gender and serve to construct and reinforce social differences. Cultural differences abound in this regard as well, resulting in markers of being female as highly valued and therefore desirable (LoCastro, 2012).

## Q. Tennon gender theory (Topic#215)

Tannen (1993) claimed that, though there is no question that dominance by men of women exists, it is not possible to attribute the cause of the enactment of dominance to specific linguistic realizations, For example, indirectness, interruptions, or topic shifts (LoCastro, 2012). Deborah Tannen believes the reason there is a difference in language between men and women is because parents used words of emotion to girls and verbs to boys. She says men and women belong to different sub-cultures. She believes the difference starts in childhood, where parents use more words about feelings to girls and use more verbs to boys. Males and females belong to difference sub-cultures and therefore speak differently. Her book, You Just Don ‘t Understand, claims that there are six main differences between the ways males and females use language:

- 1. Status vs. support** – men see language as a means of asserting dominance; women see it as a way of confirming/supporting ideas.
- 2. Independence vs. intimacy** men go it alone||; women seek support.
- 3. Advice vs. understanding** men see language as problem solving; women see it as a means of empathy.
- 4. Information vs. feelings** – males are concerned with the facts; women with emotions.
- 5. Orders vs. proposals** – men use imperatives; females use hidden directives.
- 6. Conflict vs. compromise** – men will argue; women will try to find a middle ground.

## Q. Define language, power and gender in relation with each other. (Topic-215 & 217)

According to LoCastro (2012) power has a role to play in any consideration of gender, race, ethnicity, and class. Keating (2009) defines power —as the ability or capacity to perform or act effectively; Tannen (1993)

sees the differences arising from the way female and male children are raised and socialized in their local communities. Female/male behavior is different in interaction and communication strategies and the use of power in the workplace. LoCastro 2012)

### **Q. Western perspective of gender (Topic#217)**

**Lo Castro** (2012) highlights a speech variable found in an individual's speech in Australia and the U.K., i.e. women may drop their h's. The practice of h-dropping occurs in everyday words like ouse (house), ome (home), Trudgill (1972) and Milroy (1989). In Western cultural contexts, stereotypically, it is men who are viewed as being more likely to dominate in mixed-gender groupings. Or sometimes, female participants exclude men from the conversation by selecting topics such as "choices of dresses, personal feelings or house chores". In Western Societies, researches have been conducted to differentiate between male/female behavior, verbal and non-verbal both. Historically, in efforts to describe and explain the discrimination against women in U.S. society, one focus was women's use of language. One more perspective is, women in the U.S. experience the binary choice between being addressed by Mrs. or Miss plus their family name.

### **Q. Can pragmatic competence be taught and learnt in instructed context? (Topic#222)**

LoCastro (2012) has focused on instructed development, that is, in classrooms, or other contexts organized for learning, as the acquisition of pragmatic competence in a naturalistic environment. Kasper and Rose (2002) argue that L2 pragmatics can be taught.

According to Kanaggy (1999), the children in Japan are taught the cultural practices and the pragmatic meanings the routines in classrooms including nonverbal behaviors. Children cannot learn to say —thank you without an adult in their immediate environment instructing them about the phrase and its context of use.

Local teachers can teach pragmatic competence in a better way because, sometimes, native speakers of the target language may shy away from making learners aware of miscommunication due to local sociocultural influence (Kasper and Rose, 2002).

### **Q. Lists three reasons the ELT field has had to revise its goals and teachers their practices (Topic#223)**

Learners of English as a second/foreign language do not have to also learn the cultures of native speakers of English; English is not owned by native speakers only; and the main goal of learners is to communicate their own ideas and cultures to others, not become native speakers of the language

### **Q. Training of ELT outside the traditional classroom (Topic#225)**

Teaching to develop pragmatic competence does not end for L2 learners in language focused classrooms. Indeed, there exist advanced communicative needs, particularly regarding workplace literacy skills, job interviews, and business letter writing tasks, etc. LoCastro (2012) has mentioned some factors which are highly important to find a good job. For example, self-presentation, grammatical and lexical accuracy and

appropriacy, and the ability to produce synthesized talk about personal and professional experiences and interests, etc. In this regard, Louw, Derwing, and Abbott (2010) have developed a research-based pedagogical process to help L2 learners improve their job-interviewing skills. A combination of videos of simulated job interviews, critiquing by experts on the needed skills, and trial runs by students led to improve their skills. Small talk, enthusiasm, body language, evidence of cross-cultural misunderstanding, intelligibility, and a positive demeanor are also focused. The instructional process outside of the traditional classroom comprised three phases such as: Students would observe native speaker discourse for job interviews; becoming aware of differences and salient features, and having lots of practice using new discourse and socio-pragmatic strategies. Such training for the workplace context can be a challenge for employers or new employees.

### **Q. Write 6 words that make relation between 2 sentences?**

- Despite
- In spite
- Such as
- However
- On the other hand
- Furthermore

### **Q. Write five types of implicature?**

1. Conventional implicature
2. Conversational implicature
3. Generalized conversational implicature
4. Scalar implicature
5. Particularized conversational implicature

### **Q: Three Facets of speech act**

- 1) Locutionary speech act
- 2) Illocutionary speech act
- 3) Perlocutionary speech act

### **Q. Enlist six words which may indicate relationship between utterance and prior discourse?**

1. but,
2. therefore,
3. in conclusion,
4. to the contrary,

5. still,

6. however, + anyway, well, besides, actually, all in all, so, after all, etc.

**Q. Enlist the three maxims of politeness.**

1. tact,
2. generosity,
3. approbation,
4. modesty,
5. agreement, and
6. sympathy

**Q. Write a short note on the usage of transfer translation model of translating text.**

Translation is a mental activity in which a meaning of given linguistic discourse is rendered from one language to another. It is the act of transferring the linguistic entities from one language into their equivalents in another language. Translation is an act through which the content of a text is transferred from the source language into the target language (Foster, 1958). The language to be translated is called the source language (SL), whereas the language to be translated into or arrived at is called the target language (TL). The translator needs to have good knowledge of both the source and the target language, in addition to a high linguistic sensitivity as he should transmit the writer's intention, original thoughts and opinions in the translated version as precisely and faithfully as possible.

**Q. Similar to the physical act, people also perform acts by using languages. Enlist at least three acts**

1. to give orders,
2. to make requests,
3. to give warnings or
4. to give advice, etc.